From gatekeeping to help-seeking: post-victimization behavior as a social process rather than a single decision to report

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ARTICLE HISTORY
Compiled July 25, 2026

ABSTRACT

Reporting crime victimization to the police is usually viewed as a decision-making problem and addressed from the rational choice and ecological perspectives. This paper makes a case for reframing the problem in terms of help-seeking and social network dynamics. First, to support the assumption that decision is developed in the process of social interaction, I test whether talking to friends or family is positively associated with the probability of informing the police. After controlling for crime gravity and other possible confounders, turning to friends and family proves to be a strong predictor of reporting — both of violent and property crimes, as well as of cybercrime. Next, I borrow from medical help-seeking literature and change the dependent variable: from a single decision to report or not to a path taken post-victimization. Modeling results suggest that the paths are structured both by incident characteristics and social situation, less so in cybercrime and more in cases of violent victimization.

KEYWORDS
victimization; reporting crime; help-seeking; social networks; RCVS

Introduction

In criminology, post-victimization behavior is usually viewed from the perspective of reporting or non-reporting the crime to the police. This, in turn, is usually seen as a decision a victim makes — given some circumstances but largely on their own. In this paper I aim to make a case for reframing the problem and viewing reporting as one possible waypoint in a social process triggered by victimization. This framing implies that this decision is not made in a single episode of weighing costs and benefits but rather develops through social interaction in the course of navigating the aftermath of victimization. If this navigation is not random than understanding what structures it may be valuable both for harm reduction in victims and facilitating cooperation with the law enforcement.

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This paper's argument is two-part. First, I will try to demonstrate the interactive nature of the process by showing the association of talking to friends or family about an incident with the probability of informing the police. Second, I will provide an illustration of an approach borrowed from the medical help-seeking literature in which focus is shifted from covariates of reporting to that of taking a certain path in post-victimization journey.

My perspective on the matter is formed primarily by two theoretical developments. The first is Greenberg and Ruback's model of post-victimization decision making (Greenberg & Ruback, 1992; Ruback et al., 1984) which emphasizes psychological aspects of post-victimization situation and the role of others in a person's responding to it. Their model recognizes the factor of stress and posits a different calculus behind decision making, one that minimizes stress rather than maximizes profit. From this perspective, calling the police may be one way to reduce stress — at the same time, depending on the character of an incident, reporting may be viewed as a source of additional stress to be avoided. Importantly, in this model a decision is rarely made alone, and the more stressed — the more susceptible to influence a victim is. This is where the problem becomes sociological, and this is where the second inspiration for my work comes in. It is Pescosolido's social organization strategy framework that 'shifts the focus from individual "choice" to socially constructed patterns of decisions' (Pescosolido, 1992). Her call to move beyond rational choice thinking did not suggest to abandon it all together, as it is obvious that at some point an individual does weigh some costs and benefits, — rather it stated that a proper sociological subject of study would be the interactive nature of help-seeking, not individual decisions. These two frameworks look readily compatible to me. The first provides a micro-level explanation of the need to seek help, formal and informal. The second suggests that if we want to understand help-seeking (and make help more available) we should concentrate on how people navigate the social space, what paths they take and if these paths differ for different demographics.

Both of these frameworks, despite being frequently mentioned in the literature, remain at the margins of research on reporting. Historically most of the work on the role of social support in reporting was focused on sexualized assault (SA) and intimate partner violence (IPV) (Allen, 2007; Baert et al., 2024; Patterson & Campbell, 2010; Paul et al., 2014), evidence for other types of crime remaining scarce (Bergemann, 2024; Xie & Baumer, 2019) or, as is the case with cybercrime, non-existent, to the best of my knowledge. As Knoth and Ruback (2019) put it, 'studies that assess differences between individuals who report to the police, seek alternative help, or do nothing (e.g., Kaukinen (2002)) often fail to recognize that individuals who do end up calling the police are likely to first seek advice from a third party'.

Incidentally, the similar sentiment is found in legal needs literature. Despite the evidence for importance of lay advice for contacting a lawyer with a legal problem (Open Government Partnership, 2019) the discipline is said to be lagging behind medical literature which embraced social network perspective long ago (Buck et al., 2010). Importantly, the current data gathering instruments used in the field do not provide sufficient information on this aspect of the problem (American Bar Foundation, 2025). In the case of criminology the situation is not unlike: crime victimization surveys historically concentrated on incident characteristics and victims' demographics while leaving the post-victimization social interaction out of the picture (Xie & Baumer, 2019). I use a fairly novel source of data — the Russian Crime Victimization Survey (RCVS) (Kuchakov et al., 2026), a regular and nationally representative monitoring that targets Russian citizens of 18 years and older. For my goals, the RCVS has the

advantage of recording if a victim told their friends or family about the incident. Recent analysis by Dzmitryieva and Titaev (2025) employing the same survey showed that despite a distinct socio-political context reporting behavior in Russia tends to follow the existing theoretical expectations developed in the Western context — this leads me to believe that my results are not jurisdiction specific.

To test the social process framing, I build an integrative model in the spirit of Xie and Baumer (2019), accounting for variables associated with the established views on crime reporting — specifically, those emphasizing demographics differences, rational choice, relational distance between victim and offender, and victim's attitudes towards criminal justice. Since post-victimization behavior is known to vary with crime type (Greenberg & Ruback, 1992; Janoff-Bulman, 1986), I estimate separate models for cybercrime, offline property crime and violent crime.

Broadly speaking, this paper argues for recognizing the social nature of post-victimization behavior and decisions made in its course, including reporting. This reads almost trivial, yet, the fact that a seemingly obvious factor of seeking help in friends and family remains at the margins of reporting literature, suggests otherwise. I speculate the current state of affairs is largely explained by a feedback loop between theory and data. Before moving on, I will briefly elaborate on this idea.

Traditional views on reporting problematised

Metaphors are the stuff of science (Kuhn et al., 1979) — and in quantitative research on victim crime reporting there are, arguably, two main metaphors that has been shaping it so far. The first, of course, depicts victim as an entrepreneur making a business decision, i.e. engaged in rational cost-benefit calculus. Enjoying a status close to common sense, this image has guided most of the work in the field so far — and found consistent empirical support, too. Time and again the gravity of a crime proved to be the most important predictor of reporting (Baumer, 2002; Gottfredson & Hindelang, 1979; Goudriaan et al., 2004; Laub, 1981; Schneider et al., 1975; Skogan, 1984; Tarling & Morris, 2010) and backed the veracity of rational choice model. The appeal of rational choice perspective is clear (Bruch & Feinberg, 2017): it 'provides a theory of action that can anchor empirical research in meaningful descriptions of individuals' behavior'. Also, once adopted, this perspective allows to conveniently draw conclusions from data using regression methods straightforwardly implemented in statistical software packages.

The second is the metaphor of ecology, generally understood as layering of contexts that condition the decision making process. This understanding also seems to have a commonsensical quality to it. However, for a long time assumptions of ecological effects, such as those of neighborhood disadvantage and local attitudes towards the police, has seen little empirical testing (Baumer, 2002; Goudriaan et al., 2006). When Goudriaan et al. (2004) challenged the by then established domination of cost-benefit perspective, they argued that as a result of it 'we know a great deal about how characteristics of crimes, victims, and the relationship between victims and offenders are related to reporting, but relatively little about contextual effects at the meso- or macrolevel.'

A brief sketch of the ecological model that Goudriaan et al. (2004) arrived at may be instructive as it provides an insight into a certain manner of thinking about reporting. The suggested framework has two dimensions. The first axis represents nested levels of factors affecting a victim's decision process. Micro-level comprises immediate characteristics of the incident: amount of harm suffered, weapon use, availability

of a witness, feeling of shame, etc. Meso-level is characteristics of a neighborhood or community where the incident took place: social disorganization, local attitudes towards the police, etc. Finally, on macro-level one is influenced by state or nation-wide features such as a country's criminal code. Thus, on all levels social context is geographically defined — with a notable exception of a victim's social network 'that people bring to any location'. The second axis results from distinguishing between two driving forces behind decision making — rational cost-benefit calculus and normative response. These operate within 'ecological entities' of micro-, meso- and macro-levels.

The entrepreneur and ecology metaphors are perfectly complementary. One can layer as much social context over an individual as one sees fit without re-thinking the cost-benefit core of the individual's agency. This mode of thinking was famously challenged by Pescosolido (1992): writing about research on how people seek medical help she pointed that 'by bringing in the social merely as an overlay to individual mental events, we abandon sociological notions of the pivotal process of interaction as the mechanism through which social phenomena, including but not limited to decision making, occur'. The similarity between problems of seeking medical help and reporting victimization is obvious: essentially both are problems of seeking help (Xie & Baumer, 2019). One particular common feature of illness and criminal victimization is that both frequently emerge as a shock not only to an individual but to a broader network (Friedman, 1982; Ruback et al., 1984). If the shock is spread over the network it triggers what is essentially a collective response: the victim receives emotional and practical support (or, sadly, further trauma (Davis & Brickman, 1996)), other parties become involved into decision making process, and sometimes even act on behalf of the victim. It follows that this response must differ from the one a victim is capable of on their own — which is calling to focus on the interaction that follows a crime incident.

But in practice such shift of focus happens to be precluded with data limitations. Goudriaan et al. (2004) were keen to point out that the focus on crime seriousness had resulted in emphasis on attributes of crime in victimization surveys which in turn led to obscuring of crime's context in discussion of the decision to report. To this I would like to add that the social nature of reporting has remained a blind spot in the surveys most widely used in the literature (Xie & Baumer, 2019). In NCVS, a question about informing some party other than police first appeared only in the latest update (Bureau of Justice Statistics, 2022), after 50 years of research. In CSEW it is reserved for 10-15 year-olds only. ICVS never featured such a question. Here we are reminded that metaphors are not mere devices for understanding phenomena or conveying such understanding to other people — they shape the instruments and data we use to arrive at the understanding in the first place (Feyerabend, 1975). It is characteristic that those researchers who investigated social influence on reporting mostly had to rely on qualitative material (Brooks-Hay, 2020; Campbell et al., 2015; Dworkin & Allen, 2018) or gather their own data (Baert et al., 2024; Greenberg & Beach, 2004; Greenberg & Ruback, 1992; Knoth & Ruback, 2019; Mason & Benson, 1996).

Focusing on social interaction after the crime

The ecological model includes social factors such as perceived norms but implies a static situation in which these are always activated. Yet, from the very start of reporting research there were indications of an interactive nature of decision-making. Two massive studies of police response time (Spelman & Brown, 1985; Van Kirk, 1978)

found that most of the time dialing the police was 'delayed' by people talking to others, either witnesses or advisors, in order to gather information, make sense of the situation or cope with stress. This, as well as contemporary advances in psychology of trauma (Bard & Sangrey, 1980; Figley, 1985; Kunreuther et al., 1978; Perloff, 1983; Wortman & Dunkel-Schetter, 1979), led Ruback et al. (1984) to suggest a new framework of victim decision making grounded in social psychology and fully developed in their *After the Crime* (Greenberg & Ruback, 1992).

At the center of Greenberg and Ruback's framework is, once again, an individual, but one that is fundamentally stressed, confused, their assumptions about the world challenged or shattered (Janoff-Bulman, 1986). The metaphor of doing business does not seem to be accurate anymore — more appropriate would be something like coping with a natural disaster. Rather than seeking to maximize their net profit, in this perspective a victim acts to amend the distress. The incentive for reporting, wrote Greenberg and Ruback (1992), 'varies as a joint function of victims' level of distress and the belief that notification will ameliorate the distress'. Importantly, they emphasized the part that 'counselors' play. The process of decision-making is decomposed into three stages: a) labeling event as a crime, b) determining its seriousness, c) deciding what to do. Other people's opinions may be a strong influence in each of the stages, more so given that a victim may be in a state of ambiguity or shock which makes them uncertain of what to do and susceptible to influence. It can take form of cuing a victim to particular options and scripts not yet considered, providing information, channeling certain norms, offering emotional and practical support. Findings from a series of field and laboratory experiments, interview studies and archive research described in Greenberg and Ruback (1992) tended to support the model. Most victims (70–82% depending on crime type) were likely to talk with someone before turning to the police, and most of those (58–92%) followed the advice received from others. However, both experiments and studies of archives of police and crisis centers had limited generalizability.

Since then, more quantitative evidence of importance of social influence for reporting has been gathered. Mason and Benson (1996) applied social influence model to reporting of white collar crime and found that encouragement to report increased the probability of notifying the police from 28% to 41%. Greenberg and Beach (2004) employed data from a survey of property crime victims to evaluate three frameworks of reporting: cost-benefit calculus, affective action, and social influence, — and demonstrated that the latter was the best predictor of the three. Kaukinen (2004) argued that reporting to the police should be viewed as one possible strategy of help-seeking in dealing with violence, and that it overlaps with other strategies, turning to friends and family among them. In a study of reporting violent victimization among young people Zaykowski (2015) found that parental knowledge about an incident was a key factor influencing police awareness. The WHO multi-country survey on domestic violence against women (Garcia-Moreno et al., 2005) showed that, although victims rarely seek help from agencies, friends and family can serve as a stepping stone to them. Studies by Paul et al. (2014) and Baert et al. (2024) both concluded that social support increased the likelihood of informing the police about sexualized assault.

To sum up, the evidence for importance of social network dynamics in post-victimization help-seeking is present, but the body of work remains small, fragmented by types of victimization and victim demographics, and constrained mainly to North American and the UK jurisdictions. In this study I aim to explicitly reframe the problem in the spirit of Pescosolido (1992) while encompassing both violent and property crime, as well as the newly emerged cybercrime, against general population.

Data

For this analysis, I use pooled data from three waves of the Russian Crime Victimization Survey (RCVS) (Kuchakov et al., 2026)[1]. It is a nationally representative survey conducted every three years, targeting the entire adult (18+) population of Russia. The survey waves were carried out in 2018, 2021, and 2024 in the Russian language. All three survey waves employed a Random Digit Dialing (RDD) methodology — a probability sampling technique in which telephone numbers are generated at random. Data collection was conducted using the Computer-Assisted Telephone Interviewing (CATI) method. Raking algorithm was used to obtain weights for correction of sample imbalances.

Each wave employs a screening design: a person is asked if they were subject to some kind of offense in last 5 years[2] — if yes, the person completes the full questionnaire, if no, a shortened version comprised only of questions about their sociodemographics and subjective characteristics. The process continues until a threshold of about 3,000 individuals reporting a victimization experience is reached. Across all waves, the total sample includes 42,572 respondents, 8,688 of whom responded positively to the screening question.

All respondents are asked only about their most recent incident occurring within the five years (and 12 months prior to the interview). I derive crime type — cybercrime, offline property crime, and violent crime — from responses to a number of dichotomous questions presented in everyday language (see Table A in Appendices for explication of crime type construction logic). After removing non-victims, victims of attempted cybercrime, and cases where there is not enough information to derive crime type, my sample consists of 6,684 observations — these are incidents described by respondents who said they were victimized within five years before their interview.

Missing values in certain questions were further reducing my sample. I chose to impute answers for two questions that describe a respondent's socio-economic status — household income level and settlement type (together, missings in these two questions costed 6% of the sample) — while refraining from imputing incident characteristics which are much less predictable. The missing values are predicted from other SES variables (gender, age group, level of education, type of employment, marital status, household size, having crime record), crime class, respondents region, and survey year. Multiple imputation is done with R's 'mice' package (van Buuren & Groothuis-Oudshoorn, 2011), the number of imputations needed for robust standard error estimates is determined via the procedure from von Hippel (2020) realized in R's 'homManyImputations' package. After imputation, I arrive at multiple datasets of three types — representing victims of cybercrime (2001 complete[3] or partially imputed cases), offline property crime (2812 observations), and of violent crime (1253 observations). Models described in the next section are estimated on each dataset, resulting estimates are pooled following Barnard and Rubin (1999).

The questionnaires employed across the three waves are nearly identical. An exception important for this study is the question about emotional impact of victimization — it was introduced only in the 2024 wave. This is why I use the corresponding variable only for robustness check on the subset of data coming from this latest wave of

[1]Available from Harvard Dataverse (https://doi.org/10.7910/DVN/ISMDV5) and GitHub (https://github.com/irlcode/RCVS).

[2]The precise wording is 'Please recall whether you were robbed, assaulted, threatened, or were a victim of violence, fraud, or other crimes in Russia during the last 5 years?'

[3]That is, featuring all the variables chosen for modeling and presented in panels B through E of Table 1.

survey.

Table 1 describes the data I use (the questions behind the variables are listed in Table B of Appendices). It is evident that most people do inform someone close about victimization incident and that doing so is positively associated with reporting to the police. However, as I show in the next section, at this point we should rather attribute this to multiple confounders of the two variables.

Before proceeding to analytical strategy, I must make explicit two things regarding the data:

Reporting question wording The question about police notification is worded as 'Did the law enforcement find out about the crime?' rather than 'Did *you* inform the law enforcement about the crime?' This means that, in cases where the intimate circle is notified about the incident, this question captures decisions made both by the victim themselves and friends or family, should they choose to act on the victim's behalf. Notice that in the network response framing that I suggest this is a desired quality rather than a threat to identification.

Order of events The survey records only if a respondent talked to friends or family about the incident and if the police was informed about the incident. In cases where answers to both questions are positive it is impossible to tell what happened first. Consequences of this for analytical strategy are discussed in the next section.

Method

Figure 1 provides a visual summary of the process I assume. I divide all observed variables into two groups. The first consists of all things *given*, namely a person's socioeconomic situation pre-victimization (I assume that in most cases it was not affected severely), characteristics of the incident, and macro context. The second group are *actions to take* post-victimization: these should not be reduced, as is often the case, to reporting or non-reporting — at the very least they should include informing one's intimate circle and, in case of violent crime, seeking medical help. The latter is especially important for identification of 'counsellors' effect: going to hospital suggests serious harm which is hard to conceal from friends and family, at the same time medical personnel are required to inform the police about patients 'with injuries for which there are reasonable grounds to believe that they were sustained as a result of unlawful actions'[4]. Moreover, medical staff can give informal advice to report victimization[5]. Modeling-wise, (the usual) omission of this variable would mean a potential confounding problem.

It stands out in the scheme that both the outcome and focus variables are supposedly influenced by the same set of factors. It should come as no surprise considering that

[4]It is required by the order of the Ministry of Health which sets 'the procedure for informing medical organizations of internal affairs agencies in cases established by paragraph 5 of part 4 of article 13 of the Federal Law "On the Fundamentals of Protecting the Health of Citizens in the Russian Federation"'. Whether medical personnel complies with this requirement is another question: as shown in Table 1, the police were notified about 74% of violent crimes where victims went to hospital. It is clear that much is left for discretion of the medical personnel, who, not being trained to judge on causes of injuries, have to rely on a patient's word in many cases.

[5]Kamalov and Sergeeva (2023) found that about 6% of IPV victims in Russia asked medical personnel for help. It is a considerable quantity, for comparison: only 15% of victims sought help in police. In less sensitive cases of non-partner violence, informal advice to report may be more frequent.

Table 1. Numbers of victimized and reported incidents shares tabulated by variables used in this study

		Cybercrime		Property		Violent	
		N	Reported (SE)	N	Reported (SE)	N	Reported (SE)
Panel A. Totals							
Survey wave	2018	470	0.44 (0.04)	1392	0.53 (0.02)	548	0.53 (0.03)
	2021	836	0.44 (0.02)	907	0.58 (0.02)	587	0.56 (0.03)
	2024	772	0.51 (0.02)	613	0.59 (0.02)	559	0.48 (0.03)
	Pooled	2078	0.47 (0.01)	2912	0.55 (0.01)	1694	0.52 (0.02)
Panel B. Post-victimization behavior							
Victim told friends	No	328	0.34 (0.04)	247	0.39 (0.04)	270	0.27 (0.04)
or relatives	Yes	1750	0.49 (0.02)	2665	0.57 (0.01)	1424	0.58 (0.02)
Victim went to hospital	No	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	1182	0.43 (0.02)
	Yes	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	512	0.74 (0.03)
Panel C. Socioeconomic status							
Gender	Female	1131	0.47 (0.02)	1458	0.57 (0.02)	710	0.57 (0.02)
	Male	947	0.46 (0.02)	1454	0.53 (0.02)	984	0.49 (0.02)
Age	18–24	192	0.33 (0.04)	232	0.4 (0.05)	261	0.3 (0.04)
	25–34	503	0.43 (0.03)	652	0.56 (0.03)	455	0.45 (0.03)
	35–49	766	0.48 (0.02)	1008	0.59 (0.02)	581	0.57 (0.03)
	50–64	412	0.47 (0.03)	651	0.56 (0.03)	289	0.63 (0.04)
	65+	205	0.59 (0.04)	367	0.57 (0.03)	107	0.73 (0.06)
Household size	1	420	0.49 (0.03)	635	0.53 (0.03)	411	0.52 (0.03)
	2	589	0.47 (0.03)	803	0.57 (0.02)	471	0.52 (0.03)
	3–4	810	0.48 (0.02)	1134	0.57 (0.02)	618	0.53 (0.03)
	5+	251	0.38 (0.04)	320	0.52 (0.04)	190	0.55 (0.05)
Household income	Lower	1418	0.46 (0.02)	1976	0.54 (0.02)	1118	0.54 (0.02)
	Middle to upper	604	0.46 (0.03)	844	0.57 (0.02)	516	0.5 (0.03)
Settlement type	City	1418	0.47 (0.02)	2007	0.55 (0.02)	1142	0.5 (0.02)
	Small town or village	605	0.46 (0.03)	812	0.58 (0.02)	498	0.57 (0.03)
Higher education	No	910	0.46 (0.02)	1436	0.54 (0.02)	917	0.52 (0.02)
	Yes	1164	0.47 (0.02)	1475	0.58 (0.02)	772	0.54 (0.03)
Employment	No	652	0.52 (0.03)	1043	0.57 (0.02)	484	0.62 (0.03)
	Yes	1426	0.43 (0.02)	1869	0.54 (0.02)	1210	0.47 (0.02)
Panel D. Incident characteristics							
Damage: money, thnd rub.	0 to 1	249	0.27 (0.04)	312	0.41 (0.04)	1092	0.45 (0.02)
	1 to 10	721	0.32 (0.02)	663	0.39 (0.03)	150	0.56 (0.06)
	10 to 50	581	0.51 (0.03)	945	0.56 (0.02)	202	0.6 (0.05)
	50+	527	0.7 (0.03)	992	0.7 (0.02)	250	0.74 (0.04)
Damage: physical	No	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	1120	0.48 (0.02)
	Light	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	361	0.54 (0.04)
	Heavy	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	213	0.7 (0.04)
Damage: emotional	Light	149	0.3 (0.04)	119	0.49 (0.06)	129	0.37 (0.05)
(wave 2024 only)	Medium	176	0.48 (0.05)	158	0.59 (0.05)	131	0.34 (0.05)
	Heavy	440	0.57 (0.03)	329	0.62 (0.03)	297	0.59 (0.03)
Repeated victimization	No	1201	0.51 (0.02)	1600	0.62 (0.02)	631	0.62 (0.03)
	Yes	816	0.4 (0.02)	1238	0.48 (0.02)	1000	0.47 (0.02)
There was a witness	No	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	659	0.47 (0.03)
	Yes	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	1035	0.56 (0.02)
Offender had weapon	No	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	1006	0.53 (0.02)
	Yes	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	460	0.64 (0.03)
Victim resisted	No	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	961	0.51 (0.02)
	Yes	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	733	0.54 (0.03)
Sexualized crime	No	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	1237	0.58 (0.02)
	Yes	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	226	0.49 (0.05)
Self-blame	No	601	0.55 (0.03)	1516	0.64 (0.02)	1302	0.52 (0.02)
	Yes	1477	0.43 (0.02)	1396	0.47 (0.02)	392	0.53 (0.03)
Victim-offender relationship	Stranger	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	1002	0.47 (0.02)
	Acquaintance	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	169	0.53 (0.05)
	Friend or relative	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	93	0.6 (0.07)
	Colleague or neighbor	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	140	0.76 (0.05)
	Spouse or partner	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a	79	0.63 (0.06)
Panel E. Victim's attitude towards the police							
Familiar with the police	No	1051	0.48 (0.02)	1429	0.56 (0.02)	777	0.52 (0.02)
	Yes	1023	0.45 (0.02)	1482	0.55 (0.02)	911	0.53 (0.02)
Has crime record	No	1917	0.47 (0.02)	2672	0.55 (0.01)	1416	0.52 (0.02)
	Yes	160	0.43 (0.05)	237	0.59 (0.04)	274	0.56 (0.04)

Proportions of reported victimizations and standard errors were calculated using observations weights to correct for sample imbalances.

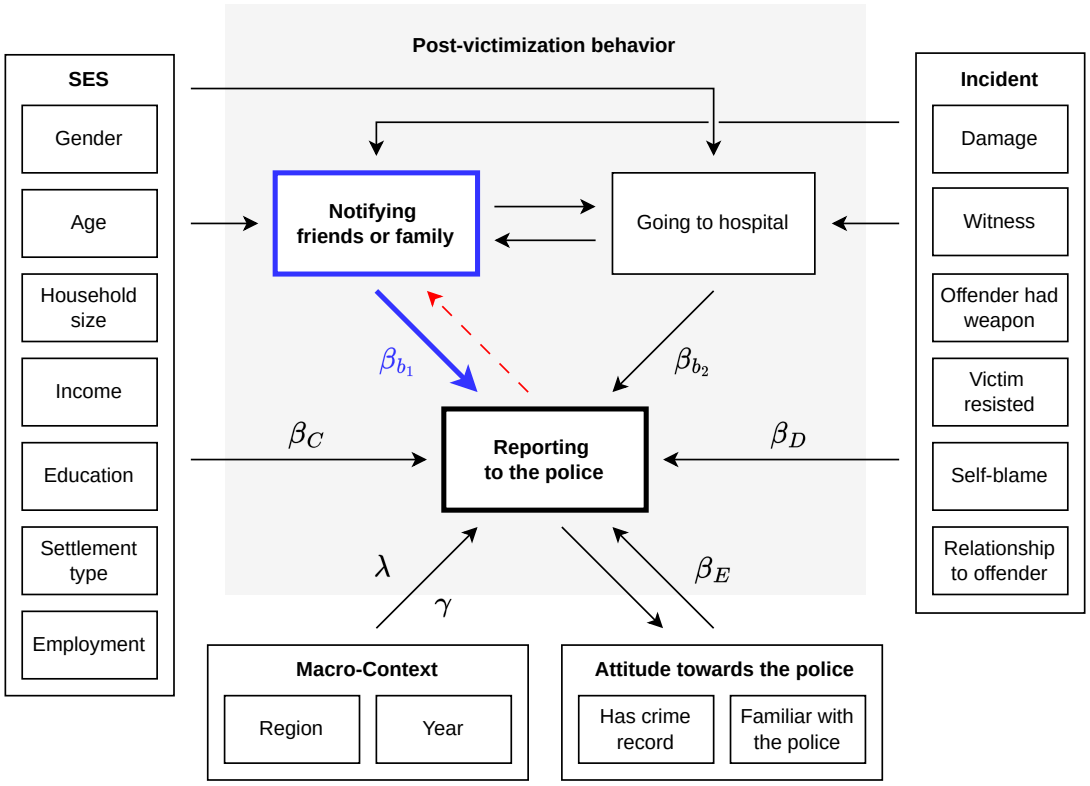


Figure 1. Causal diagram of decision making model

both represent decisions to make in certain circumstances. Fortunately, the data allow to control for these multiple confounders. A possible endogeneity problem (red arrow in Figure 1) is discussed below.

Outcome and focus variables

My first outcome variable is a respondent's answer to the question 'Did the law enforcement find out about the crime?'The variable of interest is the answer to the question 'Did you tell someone close about the crime?'. Both are yes or no questions. The second outcome that I consider is the combination of sources of help a victim has turned to. I code these as follows: F0P0 — victim informed neither friends and family nor the police; F1P0 — social network is informed, but not the police; F0P1 — the police is informed while friends and family are oblivious of the incident; F1P1 — both social network and the police are informed.

Importantly, the data do not tell us anything about the order of events post-victimization. Therefore, I must explicate an assumption I make: if a victim notifies both their intimate circle and the police, then they first turn to family and friends, then to the law enforcement. Theoretically, it is not always the case, which means that I might have an endogeneity problem. One possible solution would be to use an instrumental variable, such that modifies the probability of talking to friends or family but can not be affected by the event of reporting to the police. The RCVS features only question suitable for an instrument, 'How often do you communicate with your closest relatives?' — unfortunately, it was introduced only in the latest wave of the

survey, which sufficiently reduces sample, and was found too weak in an attempted experiment.

I reassure myself in two ways. First, what we know about post-victimization behavior suggests that if someone is notified at all then friends or family come before the police (Knoth & Ruback, 2019; Ruback & Thompson, 2001). The reverse order of events, *reporting to the police → talking to friends or family*, must be rare, but still, there remains the principal possibility that such cases are present in the data and introduce a positive bias in the estimation. Suppose they do, but what proportion must they constitute to make the effect falsely significant? In order to answer that I run a simple simulation: I do re-estimations iteratively excluding part of the observations where the victim informed both their network and the police, from 5% to 50%, moving in 5 percent points steps; each step is replicated 50 times randomizing the observations to be excluded, estimation results a pooled. The results of this simulation suggest that, to refute effect identification based on possible endogeneity we must assume that police-first cases constitute at least XX% of all cases where both the police and friends or family were notified. This does not sound realistic given the evidence in existing literature.

Second, this concern about reverse causality is only meaningful when modeling reporting, but not path taken — as in the latter case I model only combination of help options used, and their order is irrelevant.

Control variables

Other variables, apart from going to hospital, that I use for control are those listed in panels C, D, E of Table 1. They describe a victim in dimensions that were found relevant in the strains of research that emphasize demographics (Baumer & Lauritsen, 2010; D. J. Black, 1973; Hart & Rennison, 2003; Zaykowski et al., 2019), gravity of an incident (Gottfredson & Hindelang, 1979; Skogan, 1976, 1984; Tarling & Morris, 2010), post-victimization self-blame (Felson et al., 1999; Kaukinen, 2002; Knoth & Ruback, 2019), relational distance between victim and offender (Brennan, 2016; Felson & Lantz, 2016; Gartner & Macmillan, 1995; Kaukinen, 2004; Ruback, 1993), role of witnesses (Felson et al., 1999), urban vs rural context (D. Black, 1976; Laub, 1981; Rennison et al., 2013), and a victim's personal attitudes towards the police (Boateng, 2018; Goudriaan et al., 2004; Slocum et al., 2010; Warner, 2007; Xie et al., 2006). Admittedly, I have only rather specific proxies for a person's trust in the police: having a (self-reported) experience of criminal prosecution, and being familiar with the police — either because one has served in the law enforcement or is acquainted with someone in the forces[6]. On the other hand, these may be more telling than a reported degree of trust in the police, as some scholarship finds that it is direct experience with the law enforcement, and not declared perceptions of it, that affects reporting behavior (Davis & Henderson, 2003).

Apart from that I use two variables to control for macro-context. A victim's region is meant to capture local informal norms that may inform the default responses of both victims and their 'counselors' (Goudriaan et al., 2004). This is a rather crude proxy since context may vary greatly across a city, not to mention a region (Baumer, 2002; Goudriaan et al., 2006), but the best that my data allow: names of towns and

[6]In wave 2024 of the RCVS a question about trust in the police was added to the questionnaire, but for my purposes it is useless since the level of trust reported post-victimization must be informed by the very fact of reporting the crime to the police.

villages are removed from the dataset to ensure respondents' anonymity. To account for possible changes in society-level attitudes towards certain crimes and cooperation with police (Tarling & Morris, 2010) I use survey wave fixed effect.

Modeling

Notifying the police

My first model has the following linear form:

$$\begin{aligned} Reported_i = \beta_{b_1} ToldSomeone_i + \beta_{b_2} WentHospital_i \\ + \sum \beta_C SES_i + \sum \beta_D Incident_i + \sum \beta_E Attitude_i + \lambda_i + \gamma_i + \epsilon_i \end{aligned} \tag{1}$$

where *Reported* is a binary indicator of informing the police, $ToldSomeone$ is my focus variable that indicates if a victim talked with friends or family about the incident, and $WentHospital$ is indication of seeking medical help (used only in models of reporting violent crime). For conciseness, I do not list all the individual control variables here and refer you to Table 1: the groups in the equation correspond to the panels in the table, e.g. SES comprises variables related to socioeconomic status listed in panel C; *Incident* stands for incident characteristics (panel D); *Attitude* is a vector of variables that capture a victim's attitude towards the police (panel E). Finally, λ and γ are region and survey year fixed effects.

While the classic instrument for binary outcome problems is logistic regression, in this case it performs poorly due to quasi-separation issues: the coefficients are unrealistically large and standard errors look overoptimistic. To overcome this I use linear probability modeling (LPM). I follow Timoneda (2021) who demonstrated that, while theoretically inferior to maximum likelihood models, in practice LPM with fixed effects is on par with them in most settings or even more accurate. I run regressions on three subsets of victims only data split by crime type: cybercrime, property crime, and violent crime. Observations weights are included in modeling to account for sample imbalances.

Navigating post-victimization

In the second model the dependent variable is changed from reporting to taking a specific path in help-seeking journey:

$$\begin{aligned} Path_i = \beta_{b_2} WentHospital_i + \sum \beta_C SES_i + \sum \beta_D Incident_i \\ + \sum \beta_E Attitude_i + \lambda_i + \gamma_i + \epsilon_i \end{aligned} \tag{2}$$

where $Path$ is a combination of 'waypoints' — the sources of help a victim has turned to. A multiple outcome problem, it could be modeled with multinomial logistic regression. But aside from the quasi-separation issue mentioned above there is also a conceptual issue with using it. One of the assumtions of multinomial logit is independence of

path I do four separate LPM estimations, dichotomizing outcome so that, first, it equals 1 if F0P0 path is taken and 0 otherwise, then — 1 if F1P0 path is taken and 0

Table 2. Effect of informing friends or family on the probability of reporting to the police (LPM)

	Cybercrime	Property crime	Violent crime
Panel A. Base model, pooled data of three survey waves			
Victim informed friends or family	0.147 (0.046)***	0.163 (0.036)***	0.226 (0.032)***
N obs.	2000	2810	1251
R^2	0.212	0.174	0.331
Panel B. Base model augmented with level of emotional damage, wave 2024 only			
Victim informed friends or family	0.086 (0.045)*	0.181 (0.061)***	0.320 (0.083)***
Emotional damage (*ref. level*: Light):			
Medium	0.128 (0.076)*	0.067 (0.083)	-0.039 (0.094)
Heavy	0.192 (0.069)***	0.067 (0.084)	-0.029 (0.076)
N obs.	732	561	377
R^2	0.271	0.332	0.511
Panel C. Base model, pooled data, reported-but-no-case observations removed			
Victim informed friends or family	0.090 (0.042)**	0.144 (0.038)***	0.177 (0.036)***
N obs.	1517	2335	830
R^2	0.274	0.241	0.432

Signif. Codes: ***: 0.01, **: 0.05, *: 0.1. All models include controls and fixed effects as defined in Eq. 1 (models in Panel B feature only region fixed effects). Standard errors are clustered by region and survey year. Observations' weights are used to correct sample imbalances. For full regression tables see Appendices.

otherwise, and so on.

All estimations are done in R using 'fixest' package (Bergé et al., 2026), the code for replication of my results is available at a GitHub repository[7].

Results

Notifying the police

Regression results in Panel A of Table 2 suggest a positive 'counselors' effect on reporting of all three types of victimization. However, a theoretically important variable is omitted in this modeling — the level of emotional damage which can be driving both informal (friends and family) and formal (the police) help-seeking. It may well be that it is not simply a function of the amount of monetary loss, physical damage, and other observed characteristics of an incident — and, if so, there is a potential confounder in my modeling. To rule that out, I use data from the 2024 survey wave in which an explicit question about emotional damage was added to the questionnaire. Panel B of Table 2 demonstrates that inclusion of emotional damage level into the model does not change results dramatically: the effect of consulting friends or family is still positive and statistically significant, although for cybercrime only at $\alpha = 0.1$.

Next, as discussed in Method section, I have to address a possible endogeneity problem due to unknown order of informing the intimate circle and notifying the police. To ensure the *incident—friends/family—police* path I remove from analysis

[7] TBA

the observations in which a report did not result in a police case. The friends-and-family effect still stands for all three types of victimization (panel C in Table 2). Notice that in case of cybercrime both magnitude is and level of statistical significance drop — I attribute it to the fact that initiation or non-initiation of a case is not random: the police aims to filter out hard to investigate cases and those with a potential for retraction, because solved cases share is the key indicator by which their performance is judged (Paneyakh, 2014). It is safe to assume that in many of such cases a victim is also doubtful of filing a report or even labeling the incident a police matter. And, according to Greenberg and Ruback (1992), these are precisely the cases in which 'counselors' effect must be the most pronounced. That the drop occurs only in cybercrime suggests that this type of victimization is the most puzzling for victims when it comes to reporting.

Bearing this in mind (and also that most people do turn to their intimate circle before the police (Garcia-Moreno et al., 2005; Knoth & Ruback, 2019; Ruback & Thompson, 2001)), I am encouraged by the robustness check results. They warrant to conclude that activation of social network is positively associated with reporting all three types of crime — although prudence is still recommended until we have data detailing the order of actions in the aftermath of victimization.

Navigating post-victimization

Modeling pathways reveals that they have different covariates profiles, both in terms of victims' social and incident characteristics. Fig. 2 summarizes these profiles. First thing that catches the eye is that in cyber- and property crime (panels A and B) effect patterns of paths F1P0 and F1P1 are largely mirroring each other — the main differentiating characteristics being those pertaining to the crime: level of monetary loss, self-blame, and repeatedness of victimization. This almost symmetrical relationship is expected given that 1) the outcomes in each estimation result from dichotomization, and 2) F1P0 and F1P1 are the more popular routes: most of the victims inform friends and family, then either proceed to report to the police or not.

In violent victimization (panel C of Fig. 2) the patterns appear to be more socially structured and complex. Males, younger people, those living in small towns or villages, are more likely than others to not seek help at all. Repeated violent victimization predicts path F0P0 rather than F1P0 as in cyber- and property crime. If offender is an acquaintance it also raises the probability that no one will be informed about the incident. On the contrary, cases of IPV a less likely to remain unknown of (but there is no specific path a victim takes in such cases). Surprisingly, sexualized nature of assault is associated with informing the police while skipping friends and family (F0P1) — the literature on reporting rape suggests otherwise (Baert et al., 2024; Garcia-Moreno et al., 2005; Kamalov & Sergeeva, 2023). One must remember that the RCVS is a general victimization survey, not tailored for capturing the highly sensitive sexualized crimes. This suggests that 1) we observe only a small fraction of all victimizations of this kind so the signal is rather weak, hence the modest estimated coefficient, 2) this fraction may not be a random sample from all sexualized crime but rather less sensitive cases, where offender is a stranger. Theoretically, the latter could explain going straight to the police while trying to preclude spreading the information through one's social network: since offender is not part of the network there is not much that its members can do, and the information is less crucial for others safety; assuming such perceptions on victim's part, they may be more cautious to cause shock in loved ones, and to risk

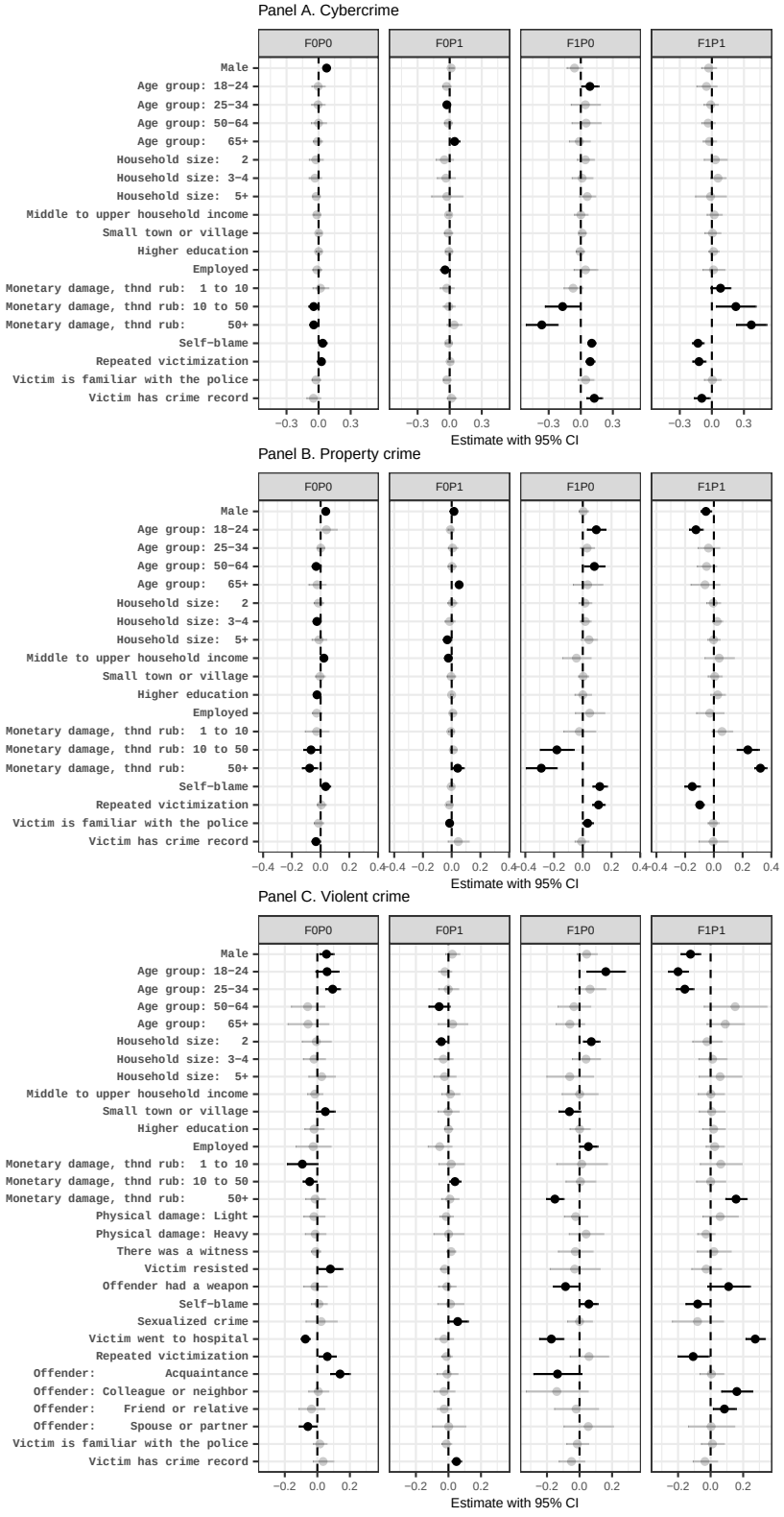


Figure 2. Post-victimization pathways' profiles

Emphasized are estimates significant at $\alpha = 0.1$. F0P0 — victim informed neither friends and family nor the police; F1P0 — social network is informed, but not the police; F0P1 — the police is informed while friends and family are oblivious of the incident; F1P1 — both social network and the police are informed. Ref. levels: Age group — 35–49; Household size — 1, Monetary damage — 0–1 thnd rubles; Physical damage — No; Offender — Stranger.

stigma associated with sexualized victimization.

Discussion

Most of the literature on reporting victimization to the police has been searching for correlates of non-cooperation, this gave us knowledge on who are under-represented in the police data, what are the blind spots of law enforcement — basically, how strongly and in what manner the official picture is distorted. This line of inquiry is important, not least because it provided us with understanding of the connections between this distortion and vulnerabilities of certain social groups (Gartner & Macmillan, 1995; Orcutt & Faison, 1988; Warner, 2007). When backed with sufficient social mobilization this knowledge would help to change the *status quo* by establishing victims services (Maguire & Pointing, 1988), changing the law (Spohn & Horney, 1992), or introducing new practices into the police work to make help more available (Sukhtankar et al., 2022). At the same time, this research still leaves a lot to be learnt about *how* victims of crime seek help and what structures this process.

The goal of my research was to provide two arguments in favor of viewing post-victimization behavior as a process rather than a single decision-making episode. First, I show that activating personal network, operationalized here as talking to friends or family, is positively associated with the probability of reporting to the police. This is meant to support the perspective in which rational calculation of *pros* and *cons* is certainly involved in making decisions post-victimization — but the recognition and weighing of those, as well of the nature of an incident and available response options, happens in an interactive social process. If this is the case, then we should take a wider view, focusing on how the process is shaped, as it may offer a fuller understanding of post-victimization behavior. Design-wise, one way to move in this direction is to change the dependent variable — from reporting victimization to taking a certain post-victimization path. My second modeling is an exercise in this vein — and its results support the notion that the path taken depends not only crime characteristics but also on social dimensions of the situation.

There are several paths one can take in seeking help after victimization, some of these lead to or pass through notifying the police (Akers & Kaukinen, 2009; Kaukinen, 2004). Admittedly, I chose the paths more traveled by — those that go through friends and family, ERs, and sometimes reach police stations. There are other waypoints worth mapping: courts, lawyers, banks, crisis centers, criminal authorities, etc. If these are recorded we could reconceptualize the dependent variable as taking one of the paths as suggested by Pescosolido et al. (1998) — my study can be seen as approaching such framework but not quite getting there because of too narrow set of help-seeking options. The same paper by Pescosolido et al. (1998) points to another possible direction of research — *content* of this network: the values, norms, or defaults that it transmits. In this study I have to make a naive assumption that friends and family can only 'push' a victim towards the police while it is obviously more complicated than that. Pursuing these lines of inquiry requires updating our instruments. Where including a question about waypoints visited and their order seems to be trivial from the technical point of view, to record the content of one's social network is a more challenging problem. Greenberg and Beach (2004) gave a radical solution: they surveyed both victims and their advisors. This approach offers rich data but introduces additional sampling problems and ultimately raises the cost of a survey so much that, as a regular monitoring instrument, it seems to be unfeasible in most settings. A

simpler instrument is already developed in the adjacent literature on IPV prevalence: questionnaires used in this research include blocks of questions about sources of help a victim used and the perceived amount of help received (Garcia-Moreno et al., 2005). This practice seems readily translatable to general victimization surveys.

Introducing my perspective on the matter I suggested replacing the entrepreneur/ecology metaphor with that of coping with an aftermath of a natural disaster. Let me invoke it one more time. In a book on social epidemiology, Kawachi and Berkman (2014) open their chapter on social cohesion and health by describing a deadly earthquake that hit Kobe, Japan, in 1997. Some neighborhoods of the city sustained less damage and recovered faster — not because they were less struck, but because of the spontaneous collective response of local citizens: they formed bucket brigades to put out fires, assisted in rescue operations, guarded abandoned property, oversaw reconstruction, and established organizations that lobbied allocating resources to local businesses.

I think the moral of this story translates well to crime victimization. Shifting focus from individuals and magnitude of incidents that strike them to how they navigate the immediate aftermath of victimization and how their social network respond to the disastrous event may provide us with better understanding of how to reduce harm. Admittedly, such shift would mean a departure from the original problem of reporting — but this may be a natural evolution of optics. Gottfredson and Gottfredson (1987) are well remembered for dubbing the victim 'a principal "gatekeeper" of the entire criminal justice process'. This promotion — from the wronged to a person of great importance — was in recognition of embeddedness of criminal justice. Yet, as the perspective of the book was justice centered, the view was still quite narrow and did not reach past the system's gate. It is emblematic that the newly appointed gatekeeper was placed under one cover with policemen, prosecutors, judges, and probation officers — effectively, included into the edifice of the criminal justice system as its furthermost part with one function and one right thing to do. This bias is akin to that the literature on seeking medical help was dealing with several decades ago (Pescosolido, 1992): it took time and reflection to see that the research was determined by presumption that there is only one positive outcome — using a modern scientific practitioner or service.

Criminal victimization and medical condition has similarities: both may affect quality of life (think fear of crime), both are shocks not only to an individual but to their social network, in both the others play important role in recognition and naming what is going on, as well as in providing support. Certainly, there are differences as well: "illness career" supposes a prolonged condition, and while it is possible to think along these lines about lasting victimization, such as repeated IPV or crimes that take time to develop such as online scams, it is hardly applicable to incidents like bike theft. This should only remind us that any analogy has its limits — obviously, there is no need to copy medical help-seeking literature in every aspect. But going beyond mere reporting and focusing on the patterns of interaction in the aftermath of victimization clearly promises new insights into the problem.

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Appendices

Appendix A. Construction of crime types

Crime type	Condition

Appendix B. Questions formulations and construction of variables

Question	Encoding	Variable

Appendix C. Wave 2024 tabulation

Table C1. Numbers of victimized and reported incidents shares tabulated by variables used in this study, survey wave 2024 only

		Cybercrime		Fraud		Theft		Assault		Robbery	
		N	Rep. (SE)	N	Rep. (SE)	N	Rep. (SE)	N	Rep. (SE)	N	Rep. (SE)
Panel A. Totals											
Survey wave	2024	695	0.52 (0.02)	34	0.73 (0.11)	394	0.56 (0.03)	254	0.56 (0.04)	78	0.62 (0.07)
Panel B. Post-victimization behavior											
Victim informed friends or relatives	No	124	0.47 (0.05)	9	0.48 (0.24)	34	0.48 (0.1)	43	0.24 (0.08)	11	0.21 (0.18)
	Yes	571	0.53 (0.03)	25	0.85 (0.1)	360	0.57 (0.03)	211	0.64 (0.04)	67	0.7 (0.07)
Victim went to hospital	No	695	0.52 (0.02)	34	0.73 (0.11)	394	0.56 (0.03)	144	0.43 (0.05)	41	0.61 (0.09)
	Yes	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	110	0.74 (0.05)	37	0.64 (0.1)
Panel C. Socioeconomic status											
Gender	Female	351	0.53 (0.03)	12	0.74 (0.18)	196	0.58 (0.04)	86	0.63 (0.06)	21	0.77 (0.11)
	Male	344	0.5 (0.03)	22	0.71 (0.11)	198	0.55 (0.04)	168	0.51 (0.05)	57	0.55 (0.08)
Age	18-24	46	0.42 (0.09)	3	0.55 (0.44)	24	0.22 (0.11)	31	0.37 (0.09)	9	0.29 (0.18)
	25-34	137	0.45 (0.05)	4	0.76 (0.26)	75	0.65 (0.07)	57	0.45 (0.08)	13	0.35 (0.18)
	35-49	298	0.57 (0.03)	14	0.79 (0.13)	144	0.61 (0.05)	99	0.62 (0.06)	41	0.73 (0.09)
	50-64	139	0.51 (0.05)	8	0.62 (0.23)	85	0.51 (0.06)	57	0.69 (0.08)	12	0.78 (0.14)
	65+	75	0.57 (0.07)	5	1 (0)	66	0.6 (0.07)	10	0.8 (0.16)	2	0.76 (0.56)
Has partner	No	289	0.5 (0.04)	19	0.71 (0.15)	177	0.55 (0.04)	139	0.55 (0.05)	31	0.59 (0.12)
	Yes	446	0.52 (0.03)	16	0.77 (0.13)	249	0.62 (0.04)	146	0.57 (0.05)	55	0.6 (0.08)
Household income	Lower	456	0.52 (0.03)	24	0.85 (0.08)	265	0.57 (0.04)	180	0.58 (0.04)	59	0.66 (0.08)
	Middle to upper	261	0.49 (0.04)	11	0.58 (0.24)	146	0.61 (0.05)	95	0.56 (0.06)	21	0.48 (0.12)
Settlement type	City	506	0.51 (0.03)	27	0.88 (0.09)	286	0.56 (0.04)	194	0.51 (0.04)	60	0.57 (0.08)
	Small town or village	189	0.55 (0.04)	7	0.34 (0.27)	108	0.56 (0.05)	60	0.71 (0.07)	18	0.74 (0.13)
Higher education	No	260	0.51 (0.03)	17	0.84 (0.11)	167	0.51 (0.04)	126	0.56 (0.05)	36	0.63 (0.09)
	Yes	433	0.53 (0.03)	17	0.49 (0.21)	227	0.67 (0.03)	126	0.57 (0.05)	42	0.59 (0.09)
Employment	Non-employed or pensioner	190	0.56 (0.04)	12	0.94 (0.08)	130	0.54 (0.05)	65	0.71 (0.07)	14	0.7 (0.15)
	Employed or student	505	0.5 (0.03)	22	0.63 (0.15)	264	0.58 (0.04)	189	0.5 (0.04)	64	0.6 (0.08)
Panel D. Incident characteristics											
Damage: money, thnd rub.	0 to 1	46	0.21 (0.07)	1	1 (n/a)	40	0.41 (0.09)	176	0.49 (0.04)	7	0.45 (0.25)
	1 to 10	219	0.38 (0.04)	7	0.72 (0.27)	101	0.42 (0.06)	32	0.67 (0.11)	12	0.58 (0.18)
	10 to 50	196	0.51 (0.04)	3	0.36 (0.34)	132	0.55 (0.05)	18	0.69 (0.14)	30	0.71 (0.1)
	50+	234	0.71 (0.04)	23	0.77 (0.12)	121	0.74 (0.05)	28	0.79 (0.1)	29	0.62 (0.12)
Damage: physical	No	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	50	0.47 (0.08)	6	0.82 (0.24)
	Light	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	118	0.48 (0.06)	18	0.68 (0.14)
	Heavy	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	86	0.71 (0.06)	31	0.6 (0.11)
Damage: emotional	Light	129	0.33 (0.05)	4	0.75 (0.34)	75	0.47 (0.07)	56	0.37 (0.08)	4	0.75 (0.39)
	Medium	167	0.48 (0.05)	6	0.05 (0.17)	109	0.61 (0.06)	55	0.46 (0.08)	22	0.44 (0.12)
	Heavy	393	0.58 (0.03)	24	0.96 (0.05)	206	0.56 (0.04)	143	0.67 (0.05)	52	0.67 (0.08)
There was a witness	No	481	0.51 (0.03)	13	0.59 (0.18)	209	0.6 (0.04)	92	0.46 (0.07)	36	0.57 (0.1)
	Yes	214	0.54 (0.04)	21	0.84 (0.12)	185	0.52 (0.04)	162	0.62 (0.04)	42	0.66 (0.09)
Offender had a weapon	No	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	179	0.51 (0.05)	33	0.66 (0.1)
	Yes	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	75	0.68 (0.06)	22	0.64 (0.13)
Victim resisted	No/Doubt	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	71	0.7 (0.06)	23	0.76 (0.12)
	Yes	0	n/a	0	n/a	0	n/a	183	0.5 (0.05)	32	0.58 (0.11)
Victim-offender relationship	Stranger	413	0.54 (0.03)	21	0.68 (0.14)	56	0.5 (0.08)	175	0.47 (0.05)	54	0.55 (0.09)
	Acquaintance	14	0.68 (0.15)	7	0.92 (0.12)	12	0.64 (0.17)	28	0.6 (0.12)	7	0.51 (0.26)
	Coll. or neighbor	4	0.68 (0.31)	5	0.85 (0.19)	7	0.64 (0.21)	31	0.95 (0.05)	7	0.64 (0.24)
	Friend or rel.	2	1 (0)	2	1 (0)	3	0.51 (0.41)	29	0.56 (0.11)	1	1 (n/a)
	Sp. or partner	2	1 (0)	0	n/a	2	0 (0)	12	0.62 (0.16)	5	1 (0)
Panel E. Victim's attitude towards the police											
Has crime record	No	627	0.52 (0.02)	25	0.66 (0.13)	361	0.56 (0.03)	207	0.57 (0.04)	62	0.62 (0.08)
	Yes	67	0.49 (0.07)	9	0.96 (0.08)	32	0.56 (0.1)	46	0.53 (0.09)	16	0.62 (0.15)
Knows an officer	No	378	0.54 (0.03)	16	0.82 (0.11)	204	0.57 (0.04)	115	0.6 (0.05)	34	0.67 (0.1)
	Yes	313	0.5 (0.03)	18	0.67 (0.16)	190	0.55 (0.04)	138	0.53 (0.05)	43	0.57 (0.1)
Trusts the police	No	347	0.52 (0.03)	23	0.9 (0.07)	219	0.55 (0.04)	155	0.61 (0.05)	45	0.64 (0.09)
	Yes	348	0.52 (0.03)	11	0.54 (0.22)	175	0.58 (0.04)	99	0.49 (0.06)	33	0.6 (0.11)

Proportions of reported victimizations and standard errors were calculated using observations weights to correct for sample imbalances.